

Chapter Five

The Politicization of the Temperance Movement in Pre-independence Estonia

KEN KALLING AND ERKI TAMMIKSAR

The early phase of the temperance movement, which was dominated by religious concerns, aimed to limit the abuse of hard alcohol. The pioneering countries in this fight during the first half of the nineteenth century were the United States, Great Britain, and Sweden. In the 1840s Germany also tried to limit the usage and abuse of hard alcohol.

In most countries wine and beer were not considered alcoholic beverages and as such were not targeted by abolitionists.¹ A change in attitude can be witnessed from 1832 onward, when the Preston Temperance Society, or the “Seven Men of Preston,” established the first temperance society in England opposed to any alcohol. At approximately the same time a similar initiative emerged in Sweden.² The new movements aiming for teetotalism were initially rather modest in numbers and influence, until a new outburst in the temperance movement took place in the last quarter of the nineteenth century. From then on the rhetoric of the movement was increasingly influenced by natural sciences and medicine, the increasingly popular sources of arguments for political ideologies.

The biologizing of national discourse reached the Baltic shores relatively early, mostly due to the German intellectual domination in the region. The main gateway for German influence in Scandinavia was Sweden. Swedes after all constituted one-sixth of the membership of the Internationale Gesellschaft für Rassenhygienie established in Germany in 1905.³

For Russia the gateway for the introduction of German-related ideologies was the Russian Baltic provinces with their German-speaking elites. Yet the acceptance of new ideologies in the Baltic realm must not be oversimplified.

The Baltic community was complex: besides the German-speaking upper and middle classes there were the indigenous Estonians and Latvians, who belonged to the peasant layer of society at the time and whose national emancipation ideas and ideologies were steadily growing. This process created tension within the society, which took an ethnic character, to the extent that the 1905 Russian revolution there was even characterized as an anti-German pogrom.⁴ In addition to the local players, the Russian central authorities increased tension in the region with their Russification initiative. A complex situation was emerging at the edge of one of the old European empires, where one group, the Baltic Germans, were trying to retain their traditional privileges; another group, the Estonians and Latvians, were challenging them; and the third, Russian state, was running the policy of *divide et impera*, aiming to bind the Western parts of the empire more tightly with the rest of it.

Because of this situation, the biologizing of national discourse in the Baltic realm must be viewed as a typical case from the turn of the nineteenth century, where emancipating ethnic groups in old European multi-ethnic empires were reacting to the attempts of the rulers to foster cultural homogeneity by additionally stressing the biological criteria in the ethnic singularity.⁵ In this context the fight against alcohol became a factor uniting nationalism with natural sciences and public health concerns.

Gustav Piers von Bunge—a Baltic Temperance Activist

It is at this point that Gustav Piers von Bunge (1844–1920) comes into play. Bunge was the professor of physiology at the University of Basel. He was of Baltic German origin, a graduate and until 1885 an assistant professor of the University of Tartu (known then as the University of Dorpat). The latter was among the leading universities of the Russian Empire in the nineteenth century. The rather broad autonomy the Baltic provinces possessed at the time was reflected in the university—teaching was done in accordance with the German academic tradition. It was the alma mater for the ruling class of the then Russian Baltic provinces (Estland, Livland, and Kurland), modern-day Estonia and Latvia, the so-called Baltic Germans. In the period discussed in this chapter, they were still preserving their traditional economic and cultural domination over ethnic Estonians and Latvians. This social division paralleled by an ethnic (linguistic) one was established in the thirteenth century as a result of the so-called Baltic Crusades and lasted until the emergence of the independent Baltic republics in the 1920s.

In the nineteenth century several outstanding scientific schools emerged and worked in Tartu, in particular, that of experimental physiology developing in tight connections with chemists. The university can be viewed as

the birthplace of experimental surgery (Nikolai Pirogov, 1810–81); experimental pharmacology (Rudolf Buchheim, 1820–79), and experimental psychiatry (Emil Kraepelin, 1856–1926). Bunge at the time was experimenting in nutritional physiology, and he was one of the founders of the vitamin theory.⁶

Bunge had ceased consuming alcohol during his student years (1863–71), as he had witnessed its devastating effects, especially on educated people. In 1885 Bunge gave a lecture in Tartu on vegetarianism where he attributed the success of the new popular ideology not to the denial of meat products but to its total denial of any alcohol.⁷ The latter statement was also central to Bunge's inaugural lecture at the University of Basel in 1886. It discussed physiological topics and was headed "Die Alkoholfrage" (The alcohol question).⁸

In his speech Bunge proved, relying on scientific methods, the harmfulness of alcohol on human physiology. It was mainly because of this presentation that Bunge managed to convince many of his colleagues—physiologists as Robert Adolf Armand Tigerstedt (1853–1923) from Finland, Rudolf Wlassak (1865–1930) from Austria, and Adolf Eugen Fick (1829–1901) from Germany—to become supporters of his anti-alcohol work.⁹ At the beginning of the 1890s, the Swiss temperance movement was joined by the famous psychiatrist Auguste-Henri Forel (1848–1931), who later became a prominent anti-alcohol activist in Europe.¹⁰ Bunge also impressed Alfred Ploetz (1860–1940), a German physicist and eugenicist, who coined the infamous term "racial hygiene."¹¹

Bunge's "Die Alkoholfrage" was translated into twenty languages, and more than a million copies were issued.¹² Bunge's contribution was especially valuable, as he managed to draw the educated circles not belonging to clergy (i.e., scientists, medical professionals, students, schoolteachers, trade unionists) into the temperance movement.¹³ Freeing the movement from clerical dominance guaranteed the movement a broader reception.

The wave of anti-alcoholism also reached the Russian Empire, with its Western provinces pioneering the ideals. The geographic distinction can be explained by the cultural one—the dominant Lutheran faith of the region created an atmosphere favoring civic activity.¹⁴ But there seem to have been even stronger factors that convinced the oppressed Baltic indigenous people to participate in organized abstinence work.¹⁵ A hint toward these factors can be seen in the heading of a study on the history of Finnish abstinence movement: "Temperance as a Civic Religion." In Finland the anti-alcohol movement can be viewed as the first organized popular movement.¹⁶ The same can be said of Estonia as perhaps "the first successful" one.

Centuries under German dominance meant not only economic and individual oppression—declared a seven-hundred-year slavery by Estonian nationalists—but it was also an environment where many cultural traditions

were being taken over. Civic activity among Estonians in the nineteenth century mimicked the German pattern and was also a reaction against traditional class society. In the nineteenth century we witness the emergence of different German-style music and agricultural societies, student fraternities, and so on, uniting ethnic Estonians.¹⁷ There was still one phenomenon in local public life where Estonians were pioneering and Germans lagging behind, and that was the establishment of temperance societies.

Our chapter aims to open some aspects in the Baltic temperance movement. The task is to point at the different ways ideas were received by the Baltic ethnic and social groups at the time.¹⁸ Special attention is paid to Gustav von Bunge.

The Estonian Temperance Movement

The beginning of the organized work against alcohol abuse in Estonia can be traced back to the eighteenth century, when the religious sects were acting as pioneers.¹⁹ At the same time there were some local moralists-enlighteners, including members of the medical profession, who spread a similar message. From the beginning of the nineteenth century, there is data on several Lutheran congregations taking abstinence oaths.²⁰ The nineteenth century witnessed a gradual increase of anti-alcohol literature, and among the authors were some early Estonian activists.²¹

The first modern temperance society in Estonia was established in 1889 and was based on the Finnish example.²² Its founder, Jüri Tilk (1865–1929), a primary school teacher, was a Fennophile. The same can be said about Matthias Johann Eisen (1857–1934), an Estonian cleric and folklorist who had been a pastor at different Finnish congregations in Karelia and Ingermanland and had established contacts with a Finnish abstinence activist, Aksel August Granfelt (1846–1919).²³ The latter—who had converted to the “abstinence faith” allegedly in 1880 by reading some relevant English literature²⁴ and later published an international journal, *Internationale Monatschrift zur Bekämpfung der Trinksitten*—suggested to Eisen, who was already abstinent by personal conviction, to publish articles in the Estonian popular calendars with a call to establish anti-alcohol societies.²⁵ There were already seventy-four societies of this kind in Finland by 1886, all promoting Christian and patriotic values.²⁶

The articles suggested by Granfelt and written by Eisen are available in two calendars for the year 1887.²⁷ The first Estonian temperance society was established two years later. Initially this society, located in rural southwest Estonia, included members all over Estonia and even from St. Petersburg.²⁸ Soon it had numerous followers. The emerging societies usually covered a rural parish or a town, uniting Estonian-speaking people of different

backgrounds, including peasants and schoolteachers, but also women, who had the right to join. Societies were spread out to Estonian communities all over the Russian Empire, including Riga and St. Petersburg.²⁹ The Finnish and Estonian anti-alcohol societies represented mainly lower social ranks. In Estonia they consisted predominantly of the rural population, while in Finland the ratio of urban laborers was high.^{30,31}

The rapid spread of anti-alcohol societies in Estonia can be explained by several factors. As abstinence work was perhaps seen as a smaller threat to the state in comparison to the increasing popularity of different cultural societies, they must have been more easily accepted by the officials. Thus, it was one of the easiest ways for the Estonian ethnic minority, belonging predominantly to the peasantry and affiliated with the Lutheran Church (which placed them in a subordinate position in the Baltic for the first reason; for both reasons in the Russian social hierarchy), to organize itself for cultural and patriotic aims.

Such an explanation is confirmed by the fact that the soaring membership in abstinence societies among Estonians correlated with the second rise in Estonian national movement in the last decade of the nineteenth century. In 1885 it was suggested that abstinence work should replace the failed first wave of "national awakening," lasting from 1860s until the middle of 1880s.³² The person behind this idea, Ado Grenzstein (1849–1916), is usually characterized as a pro-Russian.³³

The official Russian alcohol policy of the last decade of the nineteenth century, aiming at limiting consumption, supported the emergence of abstinence societies. The temperance societies founded in Russian-inhabited parts of the empire functioned under the auspices of the Orthodox Church and, unlike Finnish and Estonian societies, which were being organized from below, were elitist, constituted mainly of individuals belonging to the middle and upper classes. The same is true of the so-called Guardianships of Public Sobriety (попечительства о народной трезвости), organized by the state and meant to support the official alcohol policy. As the state wanted to avoid losses from alcohol sales, the guardianships propagated the so-called moderate concept in anti-alcohol work. Their aim was to distract people from periodic excessive drinking and cure them of alcoholism.³⁴

Such modest goals created disappointment among many Russian teetotalers and resulted in the politicization of the issue in Russia, where in the increasingly revolutionary atmosphere there were heard rather radical demands to start a new era in alcohol politics by remodeling the whole society.³⁵ As a reaction to the obviously insufficient state-run campaigns against alcohol, private initiatives in the abstinence work emerged in the Russian-speaking parts of the empire.³⁶ In the Baltic region, Russian policy supported local developments but added some new areas deriving from the socioethnic controversies in the region.

The Politicization and Ideologization of Estonian Temperance Movement

The peak of the Estonian temperance movement was the year 1903, when a total of sixty-one abstinence societies were active. After the Russian Revolution of 1905, this number started to diminish (with fifty-three in 1914, and the number of active members falling).³⁷ The decline was, besides the persecution of activists by the counterrevolution, mainly due to the emergence of rather liberal conditions of postrevolutionary Russia, enabling more open activities for the national minorities, including ethnic Estonians. Accordingly, the new educational societies and the first Estonian political party (Rahvameelne Eduerakond, Popular Party of Progress), established in 1905, entered the niche of patriotic activity that had until recently been dominated by abstinence societies. (Later it was acknowledged that abstinence societies had been the first to carry out popular educational work among the broader masses, especially in matters concerning natural sciences and health.³⁸)

One more reason for the decline may have been the growing alienation within the abstinence work between national elites pretending to see “a broader picture” and the activists at the local level. The latter targeted alcohol itself as a social vice, while the leaders preferred an approach by which the fight against alcohol served broader national goals. This is especially true of the years after the revolution of 1905, when the cover organization of Estonian abstinence societies became a battleground for different wings in Estonian national movement.³⁹ Among the latter, three main directions can be identified: liberals and socialists, plus a radical party trying to find a “third way” between the first two.

As the anti-alcohol societies in the modern Estonian territory were mainly uniting ethnic Estonians, the fight against alcohol had become a factor in Estonian national emancipation. A comparison of the Estonians’ outstanding activity in abstinence work with the inactiveness in the same field of the local German-speaking Baltic elites supports this argument.

As already mentioned, the social division in Estonia in these times paralleled an ethnic one. Indigenous Estonian speakers, predominantly peasant folk, were in the second half of the nineteenth century at the beginning of their national emancipation. The process caused social tension, expressed in a conflict between the Deutsch (Baltic Germans) and the so-called Undeutsch (Estonians and Latvians). The anti-German sentiment among Undeutsch was supported by growing Russian influence in the region during the final decades of the nineteenth century, aiming to abolish the remnants of Baltic autonomy and singularity. Russification in its practical aspects targeted at firsthand the Undeutsch, but it also supported their political struggle against Baltic German domination.⁴⁰

Estonians targeted different privileges of the German upper class. As in rural areas the right to run taverns was mainly a privilege of the predominantly German-speaking landlords, the fight against drinking places was often accompanied by anti-German sentiment.⁴¹ The same Estonian *schadenfreude* was present when Russian state monopoly for alcohol sales introduced in 1894 came into force in the Baltic provinces in 1900, limiting with it the historic privileges of the local *Ritterschaft*. Unlike other parts of Russia, where dissatisfaction concerning alcohol policies was channeled into state criticism, the Baltic region saw the local elites being targeted. Such developments, initiated by the Russian state, caused local elites economic harm and were used by Estonian nationalists for propagandistic purposes, and they must be viewed among the factors distancing the local German-speaking elites from the abstinence work.

There seems to have been one more reason that the Baltic German aristocracy misunderstood the ideas of anti-alcohol work and Estonians grasped after it. At this point one has to admit a rather far-reaching biologizing of the concept of nation by Estonian elites in the turn of the past century—the ideas of eugenics and racial theories influencing the national discourse. Historians of eugenics have explained this development with the wish to challenge the existing logics of class society by meritocratic ideas.⁴² And as mentioned previously, it must have also been a way, typical to the era, of defining a nation's distinctive character in a context in which it was questioned.

The tendency to biologize the concept of nationality was common in Europe, but in Estonia a special facet has to be taken into account. Estonia could be said to suffer from a national inferiority complex caused by its small population, compared especially to Russians and Germans. Furthermore, according to the theories of the era, without statehood Estonians were seen as a culturally inferior *Naturvolk*, as opposed to the politically developed so-called *Kulturvolk*.⁴³

A peasant society with “no history” had to forget about its future as a political nation, a fate not accepted by the leaders of Estonian national movement. Juhan Luiga (1873–1927), a psychiatrist and an early propagandist of eugenics in Estonia, resisted this ideology, declaring that instead of so-called political history, arguments from natural sciences should be implemented to justify the existence and emancipation of Estonians. The “Laws of Nature” became a national challenge.⁴⁴ They could not be voted by parliaments nor denied by monarchs.⁴⁵ The concept of nation was in Estonian tradition understood mainly through linguistic criteria, but it also included biological aspects.⁴⁶

As a result, different phenomena in social life were pathologized or medicalized; eugenic targets—both the quality and quantity of people—were put forward; and alcohol, as a broadly accepted threat for the “national body,”

received a central position in national discourse.⁴⁷ The main proponents of the threats of alcohol in a eugenic sense were Luiga and Jaan Tõnisson (1868–1940?). The latter, an outstanding national leader of his time, head of the party of liberals and editor of the influential Estonian newspaper *Postimees*, declared that even if people were not receptive to the anti-alcohol sentiment, they ought to support the movement for its eugenic character—the fate of the Estonian nation was at stake.⁴⁸ Such an approach was generally welcomed by different Estonian nationalist movements.⁴⁹

The ideologization and politicization of the temperance movement was the context in which the previously mentioned alienation between the national elites and local activists can be seen. Tõnisson, who was to make abstinence work one of the tools of his political work, declared in 1898 that “the whole abstinence ideology seems to be imported, and is lacking understandable goals.”⁵⁰ In 1907 complaints were already arising—as the Tõnisson’s group had won a leading position in the movement—that educated leaders were campaigning against alcohol in a far too complicated way that “ordinary men” found hard to understand and felt themselves diverted from abstinence work.⁵¹

The increasing involvement of the educated circles in the Estonian temperance movement caused its medicalization.⁵² Villem Reiman (1861–1917), a pastor and a leading temperance activist, already described alcohol in Darwinian and hereditarian terms in 1890.⁵³ Tõnisson, after participating at the International Anti-Alcohol Congress in Vienna in 1901, eagerly spread the ideas of A. Forel and Dumeng Bezzola (1848–1931).⁵⁴

As a result, one might agree with the leftist historian Hans Kruus (1891–1976), who in 1921 wrote that at the turn of the century the ideology of Estonian liberals, the followers of Tõnisson—who were definitely the most idealistic among the nationalist groups—had departed from the metaphysical concept of “national spirit” and was based on a new entity, the allegedly science-based “national body.” Kruus, who blamed German influence for making racial theories important for Estonian ideologists, stated that instead of Hegel and Kant, in Estonia the theories of racial hygiene were welcomed.⁵⁵ German traces, next to the Finnish ones, can also be seen in the anti-alcohol work. The Estonian abstinence propagandists were also familiar with the texts of Bunge.⁵⁶

Gustav von Bunge and His Abstinence Writings

Bunge must have become interested in the temperance work while working in Tartu. In his booklet *Die Alkoholfrage*, he discussed his own studies concerning the harm of alcohol on organisms and presented his ideas on how to fight the dangers. Bunge based his anti-alcohol message on the theory

of degeneration. It saw a broad spectrum of items (including alcohol), as “racial poisons,” agents capable of weakening directly or indirectly (i.e., by breastfeeding mothers) the biological quality of present and future generations. In Basel Bunge continued to collect scientific data on the harmfulness of alcohol. He studied breast milk and breastfeeding and in this study Bunge used a questionnaire that he sent to numerous colleagues at home and abroad.⁵⁷ Bunge’s aim was to collect data on the influence of alcohol consumption on the length and quality of breastfeeding.⁵⁸ He included in the questionnaires propagandistic material he prepared himself.

Bunge believed that the fate of his passion was mainly dependent on the good will and attitude of the elites: “It is the duty of educated, rich, influential and reigning, to impinge by their personal example.” The final step—prohibition of alcohol—was to be taken by the state, but for that “passing legal acts by the state a path for it has to be prepared by private societies.”⁵⁹

Bunge admitted that his dedication to anti-alcohol work hindered his career. His colleagues were suspicious and spread rumors that he had become mentally ill and was hospitalized. The latter rumor emerged because he was not spending time with his friends and drinking beer.⁶⁰ In a letter to his sister Elisabeth von Ruckteschell (1850–1948), from the year 1903, Bunge is convinced that he made the right choice, especially as the circle of his supporters was gradually growing.⁶¹ Confirmation for that comes from the year 1900, when the Estonian newspaper *Postimees* informed its readers that the opening of the annual Livonian Doctor’s Days was greeted, among others, by the “Society of Abstinent Doctors of Germany.”⁶² The document was undersigned by E. Kraepelin, a world-famous psychiatrist who had worked in Tartu between 1886 and 1891 and contributed, among other things, to medical anti-alcohol work.

The predominantly German-speaking medical professionals in the Baltic were rather reluctant to accept matters related to alcohol into their agenda. The same applies to the Baltic German community in general, especially the aristocrats. They were acquainted with the abstinence work but reluctant to become involved in the movement. This is reflected in a letter Bunge received from his brother Woldemar (1842–92) in 1891: “Quite a number of people here are interested in the alcohol-issue, but it is not easy for them to make a decision to join an anti-alcohol society.”⁶³

Gustav von Bunge was very unhappy about the drinking frenzy among the students of his alma mater; these youngsters were after all the future elites of the society. The contacts Bunge had kept in his homeland supported his conviction that the drinking traditions of German Burschenschaften—continuing also among alumni—had spoiled the health of the men involved (he believed that the Baltic German women were still unspoiled).⁶⁴ The situation was mocked in the Estonian media. An Estonian anti-alcohol booklet from 1895 includes an ironic comment by which the only reaction of local

students to Bunge's propagandistic anti-alcohol speech held in Tartu was to name one popular schnapps after Bunge.⁶⁵

Bunge noticed and was especially annoyed by the fact that Estonians were more active in anti-alcohol work than local Germans. In 1904 he complained to his sister, "This is really disgraceful that our Estonians have more sense than our Germans. It seems that no one is telling the truth in Tartu to our moonshine-soaked members of student fraternities."⁶⁶ In 1910 Bunge wrote, "The *Herren* (meaning the Baltic Germans) have no right to complain about the Russification as long as they Russify themselves itself [with alcohol]. My only hope is that Estonians and Latvians shake them awake from their crystallized numbness."⁶⁷

Wishing to bring about changes, Bunge sent temperance literature to the student fraternity he had belonged to (Korp! Livonia). Bunge also provided his sister with the relevant literature, the latter wishing to start a temperance movement among the youth of Tartu in 1910. Bunge advised her to seek support from August Rauber (1841–1917), the professor of anatomy at the University of Tartu, and the teacher of the local private gymnasium, Georg Rathlef (1846–1914).⁶⁸ The latter, along with the popular professor of practical theology Traugott Hahn (1875–1919), became actively involved in the temperance movement.⁶⁹

The attitude of Baltic Germans toward the alcohol-issue started to change in parallel with the growing Russification on one hand and the emancipation of Estonians on the other. An important factor sparking German activity in the temperance movement must have been the Russian Revolution of 1905, which affected the urban middle classes. This is also where the Finnish left their marks. A change in Baltic-German attitudes towards alcohol did not take place among the academic circles of Tartu but in the local economic center that was Riga, modern Latvia. In 1906 this town hosted an exhibition dedicated to the living conditions of workers. It included a section about health matters, where the topic of alcohol was discussed through lectures and three spectacles for children, organized by a Finnish doctor Alli Trygg-Helenius (1852–1926). Her approach became highly popular in Riga. As a result, the topic of anti-alcohol work entered the agenda of local German craftsmen's guild.⁷⁰

In 1908 the Riga Society for Promoting People's Welfare (Der Verein zur Förderung der Volkswohlfahrt) was created. The next year a group of teachers and women organized in it a section for a fight against alcohol (Sektion zur Bekämpfung des Alkoholismus). The section propagated the ideology of absolute abstinence. It supported the ideas of Bunge and Kraepelin but also appreciated works by the Finnish professor of hygiene and abstinence activist Taavetti Laitinen (1866–1941). The section handed out literature and leaflets. It included Latvians and Russians as members, and in 1910 a workers' section was attached to it.⁷¹

In Baltic German-language abstinence work women took on an important role. In Germany the first "abstinence circle" for women had emerged in 1900. The Abstinence Society of Baltic Women (*Bund der Baltischen Abstinenten Frauen*) was organized in Riga in February 1909 with the support of German agitators and chaired by Elisabeth von Grewingk (?–1930). The society became attached to the *Sektion zur Bekämpfung des Alkoholismus*. There were attempts to organize similar, German-speaking female abstinence societies in Tallinn (then Reval) and Tartu (both in modern Estonia), but these plans never came to fruition.⁷²

The Medical Profession in Anti-alcohol Work

For Bunge the most important challenge seems to have been the task of changing the mentality of local medical doctors. Bunge was a supporter of full abstinence, which he demanded also of the anti-alcohol societies and activists. He stressed that the history of anti-alcohol movement has proved that the societies propagating moderation have been unable to get results.⁷³

The problem was that the doctors of his homeland seemed to stand on the opposite side. The protocols from the Tartu and Tallinn medical societies from the end of nineteenth century until the year 1912 show no interest in the alcohol issue, as there were no presentations on alcohol during that time and during the meetings the doctors drank beer.⁷⁴ Bunge was convinced that the old-school professionals with their alcohol-friendly attitude did great harm to the reception of abstinence work in society, and there was no hope for improvement until the change of generations had taken place. Bunge believed that the new generation of medical professionals would reason in a different—modern—way.⁷⁵

The local, predominantly German-speaking medical professionals also exposed their old-fashioned attitude by paying rather modest attention to the pleadings of the Estonian anti-alcohol societies. The latter wished the annual local provincial doctors' meetings (so-called doctors' days) to use their authority and denounce the popular belief among people that alcohol was a remedy. There was some reaction as at the Livonian doctors' days in 1900 a commission was elected, whose task it was to work out a position for doctors on the alcohol issue, but the results seem to have remained unsatisfactory.⁷⁶

In 1909 an institution emerged uniting the medical professionals of all three Baltic provinces. The so-called Baltic Congress of Doctors (*Baltischer Ärztekongress*) was held in Tartu and was once more approached by Estonian anti-alcohol societies with a plea to take a critical position on alcohol. Again there was no immediate official reaction, and Estonian newspapers had a reason to criticize the event.⁷⁷ One of the then outstanding

Estonian doctors involved in the national movement, Henrik Koppel (1863–1944), had to admit that the atmosphere of the congress was dominated by German mentality, and a critical topic for every practicing medical doctor was missing from its agenda—the health of his circle, homeland, and nation.⁷⁸

In reaction to the possible negligence of local medical societies toward the concerns of indigenous population, the Estonian-born doctors declared a need to organize on a national basis. Such a standpoint had been confirmed by the visit of some leading Estonian nationalists also participating in the anti-alcohol work to the Eleventh International Abstinence Congress, held in Stockholm in 1907. The visit was reflected in Estonian media with an article by Koppel, headlined “Alcohol, Medical Science and Doctors” (“Alkohol, arstiteadus ja arstid”), in which several Nordic authorities were cited to stress the importance of medical professionals’ role in the anti-alcohol movement.⁷⁹

The North Baltic⁸⁰ Doctors’ Society (Põhja Balti Arstide Selts) was established in 1912, integrating Estonian-speaking doctors and veterinarians. Among other activities, the society took over the publication of the popular Estonian-language journal *Tervis* (Health), established in 1903 by Tõnisson and Koppel, thereby contributing to the temperance movement.

Retrospectively, the split along national lines among Baltic medical professionals was an overreaction caused by national tensions. Relative to the anti-alcohol work, changes were also taking place in German-dominated medical circles. The chairman of the 1909 Baltic Congress of Doctors, Prof. Karl Dehio (1851–1927), had, in fact, declared the pleadings of Estonian anti-alcohol societies very important and made a proposal to discuss the topic during the next congress, scheduled to take place three years later. Despite the skepticism of some of the participants, Dehio’s will prevailed. It was decided that the medical profession had an obligation to formulate its position concerning alcohol. In response to Dehio’s proposal, a so-called alcohol commission was formed. Its members had to prepare scientific presentations on the influence of alcohol on human organism and to discuss the ways of fighting its harmfulness.⁸¹ At the Second Congress of Baltic Doctors, held in 1912, several presentations were given on the topic. They were published in the journal *St. Petersburger medizinische Zeitschrift*, uniting the German medical professionals of Russia.⁸² In addition, a separate booklet was issued with a resolution of the congress on the matters of alcohol.⁸³

The presentations held at the congress lauded the abstinence movement but also stressed individual autonomy to decide whether to consume alcohol. There were presentations pro and con absolute abstinence as well as moderation. Knowing the inclination of doctors to support moderation in alcohol consumption, the congress was approached by the Riga Society for

Promoting People's Welfare, which by then had become involved in the treatment of alcoholism, with a public letter to support total abstinence.⁸⁴

As a reaction to complaints that the presentations given at the congress had been too scientific and did not agitate for abstinence, the chair of the commission, Dehio, commented that the aim was not to make propaganda for abstinence but to analyze the severity of the alcohol problem. Dehio also declared that criticism of the principle of moderation in abstinence work is not justified because this method promises results. As an example, he brought data showing that the students in Tartu had quit their practice of drinking beer in the mornings and evidence that sports and hiking were gaining popularity.⁸⁵ Not only that, there were also other hints that among students the topic of alcohol had become a matter of interest, and they discussed the issue in their fraternities.⁸⁶

The congress declared alcohol an ultimate social vice, "a poison to the people." It was also admitted that until then the most successful fight against alcohol had been conducted by the abstinence societies. However, the congress did state that adults had the right to decide for themselves whether to consume alcohol.⁸⁷ In this way the resolutions of the congress were a compromise that did not demand absolute denial of alcohol, and this angered Bunge greatly.⁸⁸

Bunge's Legacy

Gustav von Bunge died in 1920, in the same year the Estonian Republic was *de facto* born. The anti-alcohol movement had played an important role in the process of Estonian national emancipation and nation building, serving as one context where political culture was learned.⁸⁹ Civic activity remained in the newly independent Estonia. Temperance movements continued to remain active, promoting, among other things, women's emancipation. The Estonian eugenics society, established in 1924, kept alive the discussions on the biological essence of the nation. It was also never agreed among different parties within the abstinence work whether moderation or total abstinence, as was demanded by Bunge, was to be preferred.⁹⁰

It is impossible to say how Bunge would have greeted the emergence of the Estonian state. Perhaps he would have been positively inclined; after all, Estonia came very close to introducing a prohibition law in the early 1920s.⁹¹ The newborn state also introduced a policy somewhat resembling the so-called Gothenburg system, redistributing the profits earned (in Estonia's case, by the state) from alcohol sales for public purposes, including supporting anti-alcohol work. The idea was already propagated in Estonia before independence.⁹² The Gothenburg system lasted in Estonia until 1926. Then alcohol sales were liberated in Estonia.⁹³

However, the new state expropriated the land of the Baltic-German nobility, an act fitting the general anti-German atmosphere in Europe in the years after the Great War. Bunge's name can be found on the pages of the histories of German nationalism, imperialism, and racial hygiene.⁹⁴ Bunge's driving motivation in his fight against alcohol very well might have been Pan-Germanism. In 1904 he wrote to his sister, justifying his campaign, "If Germans in Russia could follow two principles: 1) stop poisoning themselves with alcohol; 2) stop mixing with inferior races, then they could rule not only in Russia, but in the whole world. No race in the world can compete with the pure and healthy German blood."⁹⁵

Historically, the medical justification of abstinence ideology has supported racially biased theories and eugenics. Yet Bunge's case seems to be more complicated, as he personally was inconsistent with regard to biological reductionism. On the one hand, he participated in the increasingly popular nineteenth-century trend of idealizing biological elements in social discourse. On the other hand, some of his scientific theories express discontent with mechanical explanations in some natural sciences. Bunge was one of the founders of biovitalism (neovitalism), a theory that resists reducing life processes to simple physical and chemical mechanisms.⁹⁶

In fact, several representatives of the Baltic scientific community supported theories diverging from the main direction of the natural sciences: Karl Ernst von Baer (1792–1876) supported teleological principles in life sciences, Wilhelm Ostwald (1853–1932) became one of the founders of monist ideology, and Jakob Johann von Uexküll (1864–1944) that of biosemiotics.⁹⁷ The theory that the choices made by the mentioned Baltic scholars were accidental, is not credible. It seems, instead, that the local sociopolitical context where the Baltic upper-class society was endangered by modernization, but also where the social Darwinist environment of the Russian Empire was endangering ethnic and cultural minorities, was a catalyst for such defensive ideological inclinations.

Bunge in that way seems to have been in an awkward position concerning his scientific views, understood within the political discourse of his homeland. Representing Baltic aristocracy, Bunge had to witness his aristocratic compatriots clinging to traditional class society and denying the objectification of the members of their social status under any concepts limiting individual autonomy or substituting the traditional social patterns with the reductionist mechanisms of the natural world. The Baltic upper classes felt threatened by the growing pressure from Russian central authorities and were losing ground to the emerging indigenous ethnic groups—Estonians and Latvians. Such developments could cause defensive reactions against modern ideologies. As a result, the anti-alcohol work in the Baltic countries was limited to the middle and lower classes and women, all emerging as the new players on the historical scene.

Notes

This study was funded by the Ministry of Education and Research of the Republic of Estonia (Projects IUT 2-16 and P170021SPTL).

1. Hermann Blocher, *Gustav von Bunge: Eine Gedächtnisrede, gehalten in der am 28. November 1920 vom Basler Abstinentenverband veranstalteten Gedenkfeier* (Lausanne: Alkoholgegnerverlag, 1920), 14, 17.

2. Eduard Graeter, *Gustav von Bunge: Naturforscher und Menschenfreund* (Basel: Schweizerischer Verein abstinenter Lehrer und Lehrerinnen, 1952), 15–16.

3. Gunnar Broberg and Mattias Tydén, “Eugenics in Sweden: Efficient Care,” in *Eugenics and the Welfare State*, ed. Gunnar Broberg and Nils Roll-Hansen (East Lansing: Michigan State University Press, 1996), 77–149, esp. 83.

4. Björn Felder, “Introduction: Eugenics, Sterilisation and the Racial State; The Baltic States, Russia, and the Global Eugenics Movement,” in *Baltic Eugenics: Biopolitics, Race and Nation in Interwar Estonia, Latvia and Lithuania 1918–1940*, ed. Björn Felder and Paul Weindling (Amsterdam: Rodopi, 2013), 5–29, esp. 9.

5. Paul Weindling, “Race, Eugenics and National Identity in the Eastern Baltic: From Racial Surveys to Racial States,” in Felder and Weindling, *Baltic Eugenics*, 33–48, 35.

6. Cristiaan Eijkman and Frederick Hopkins, “The Earlier History of Vitamin Research,” in *Nobel Lectures: Physiology or Medicine 1922–1941* (Amsterdam: Elsevier, 1965), http://www.nobelprize.org/nobel_prizes/medicine/laureates/1929/hopkins-lecture.html.

7. Graeter, *Gustav von Bunge*, 17.

8. Gustav von Bunge, *Die Alkoholfrage: Ein Vortrag* (Leipzig: Vogel, 1887).

9. Blocher, *Gustav von Bunge*, 19.

10. Ibid., 26–27.

11. Paul Weindling, *Health, Race and German Politics between National Unification and Nazism, 1870–1945* (Cambridge: Cambridge University Press, 1989), 71–72.

12. Graeter, *Gustav von Bunge*, 18. In 1894 it became available in Estonian.

13. Blocher, *Gustav von Bunge*, 18–19.

14. Patricia Herlihy, *The Alcoholic Empire: Vodka & Politics in Late Imperial Russia* (Oxford: Oxford University Press, 2002), 108.

15. Ibid., 118–19.

16. Irma Sulkunen, *Raitius kansalaisuskontona* (Helsinki: SHS, 1986).

17. Erki Tammiksaar, “Alexander Theodor von Middendorff und die Entwicklung der livländischen Gesellschaft in den Jahren 1860 bis 1865,” *Zeitschrift für Ostmitteleuropa-Forschung* 59, no. 2 (2010): 147–85.

18. The article does not discuss in detail the anti-alcohol movement among ethnic Latvians. It has been written that the first Latvian abstinence society, established in 1891 in Riga, followed among others Estonian example—Герман Аскап, “Исторический очеркъ противоялкольного движенія у латышей,” in *Труды Перваго Всероссийскаго Създа по Борбѣ съ Пянствомъ: Санкт-Петербургъ, 28 декабря 1909 г.—6 января 1910 г.* (С.-Петербургъ: Типография П. П. Сойкина, 1910), 974.

19. Rudolf Põldmäe, “Eesti vennastekoguduste võitlus rahva joomapahega,” *Eesti Kirjandus* 32, no. 6 (1938): 281–93.

20. Otu Ibius, "Eesti karskusliikumise ajalugu," manuscript, Tartu University Library, Department of Rare Books and Manuscripts, booklet I–V. 1939: I; booklet, 131–35.

21. Friedrich Reinhold Kreutzwald, *Wina kath* (Tartu: Lindfors'i pärijad, 1840).

22. A feature distinguishing Estonians from other Baltic people was a special relation to Finland. The so-called Finnish Bridge was a romantic euphemism to mark the admiring glance of Estonian elites toward Finland, a nation more developed in social sense with a similar language.

23. It is perhaps worth mentioning that Granfelt also visited Estonia in 1880 to learn from the work of the by then existing Estonian cultural societies, organizing among others national song festivals. Sulkunen, *Raittius kansalaisuskontona*, 49.

24. Mattias Eisen, "Isiklikke mälestusi Soome-Eesti kultuurilisestest kokkupuutumistest 50 aasta eest ja neile järgneval ajal," in *Tervitus lahe tagant*, ed. Friedebert Tuglas (Tartu: Eesti Kirjanduse Seltsi Kirjastus, 1931), 56–72, esp. 68.

25. Ibid.

26. Mattias Eisen, "Karskuse seltsid," in *Isamaa Kalender 1887 aastaks (Lisa)* (Tartu: Schnackenburg, 1886), 24, 26.

27. Ibid.; Eisen, "Joomine ja karskus."

28. Eduard Kubjas, *Eesti Karskusliit 1906–1931* (Tartu: Eesti Karskusliidu Kirjastus, 1931), 7.

29. Ellen Karu, "Pilk Eesti karskusseltside algusaastaisse," in *100 aastat karskusliikumist Eestis*, ed. Erki Silvet (Tallinn: Eesti Raamat, 1989), 8–29, esp. 9–10.

30. Ibid., 12–13.

31. Herlihy, *The Alcoholic Empire*, 118.

32. Greutzstein, "Joomise vastu," 1.

33. Toomas Karjahärm and Väino Sirk, *Eesti haritlaskonna kujunemine ja ideed 1850–1917* (Tallinn: Eesti Entsüklopeediakirjastus, 1997), 276.

34. Herlihy, *The Alcoholic Empire*, 14–17.

35. Ibid., 9–13.

36. Ibid., 111–28.

37. Karu, "Pilk Eesti karskusseltside algusaastaisse," 9.

38. Ernits, "Karskusliikumine ja haridustöö Eestis," 27.

39. Ibius, "Eesti karskusliikumise ajalugu," booklet II, 142.

40. Alexander von Tobien, *Die livländische Ritterschaft in ihrem Verhältnis zum Zarismus und russischen Nationalismus*, vol. 1 (Riga: Löffler, 1925); vol. 2 (Berlin: Walter de Gruyter, 1930); Reinhard Wittram, *Meinungskämpfe im baltischen Deutschland während der Reformepoche des 19. Jahrhunderts* (Riga: E. Bruhns, 1934); Michael Haltzel, *Der Abbau der deutschen ständischen Selbstverwaltung in den Ostseeprovinzen Russlands: Ein Beitrag zur Geschichte der russischen Unifizierungspolitik 1855–1905* (Marburg a. d. Lahn: Herder-Institut, 1977); Edward C. Thaden, *Russification in the Baltic Provinces and Finland, 1855–1914* (Princeton, NJ: Princeton University Press, 1981).

41. For the sake of truth, it has to be stressed here that there were also landowners who were closing taverns by their own initiative, either for economic or moral reasons.

42. Greta Jones, "Theoretical Foundations of Eugenics," in *Essays in the History of Eugenics*, ed. Robert A. Peel (London: Galton Institute, 1997), 1–19, esp. 7.

43. Ken Kalling, "Application of Eugenics in Estonia 1918–1940," in Felder and Weindling, *Baltic Eugenics*, 49–82, 49–50.

44. Juhan Luiga, "Rahvaste tõus ja langemine" (speech given in 1909), in *Mäss ja meelehaigus*, ed. Hando Runnel, 132–40 (Tartu: Ilmamaa, 1995), 221.
45. Mihkel Pill, "Darwini saja-aastase sünnipäeva mälestuseks," *Eesti Üliõpilaste Seltsi Album* 8 (1910): 24–58, 58.
46. Ken Kalling and Leiu Heapost, "Racial Identity and Physical Anthropology in Estonia 1800–1945," in Felder and Weindling, *Baltic Eugenics*, 83–114.
47. Ken Kalling, "Karskusliikumine sünnitab eugeenikaliikumise," *Mäetagused* 36 (2007): 59–78.
48. Jaan Tõnisson, "Sõnavõtt," in *Kuues Eesti karskusseltside kongress* (Tartu: Eesti Karskusseltside Keskoitumkond, 1907), 7–9.
49. Kalling, "Application of Eugenics in Estonia 1918–1940."
50. Jaan Tõnisson, "Kolmas üldine Eesti karskuskoosolek," *Postimees*, January 5/17, 1898, 1–2.
51. *Kuues Eesti karskusseltside kongress*, 13.
52. Ken Kalling, "Karskusliikumine ja arstiteadus sõjaeelses Eestis," *Eesti Arst* 91, no 9 (2012): 415–22.
53. Villem Reiman, "Kas elutilk või surnumeri," *Postimees*, February 27, 1890, 1.
54. Jaan Tõnisson, "Alkoholivabast kultuurist," in *Tulev Eesti jõulualbum 1921* (Tartu: O. Lõhmuspui, 1921), 9–15, esp. 9–10.
55. Hans Kruus, *Jaan Tõnisson Eesti kodanluse juhina* (Tartu: Odamees, 1921), 89.
56. Villem Ernits, "Villem Reiman karskustegelasena," in *Tulev Eesti jõulualbum*, 29.
57. Gustav von Bunge, *Die zunehmende Unfähigkeit der Frauen ihre Kinder zu stillen: Die Ursachen dieser Unfähigkeit, die Mittel zur Verhütung* (Munich: Ernst Reinhardt, 1903). The research was published in Estonian in 1904.
58. "Statistisches Material: Eine Anzahl Fragebogen, ausgefüllt von verschiedener Medizineren," in *Öffentliche Bibliothek der Universität Basel, Handschriftenabteilung, Nachlass Gustav von Bunge*, die Mappe 57.
59. Gustav von Bunge, *Alkoholi küsimus* (Jurjev: K. A. Hermann, 1894), 20, 22.
60. Gustav von Bunge to Louise von Bunge, Basel, November 15/27, 1896. In *Öffentliche Bibliothek der Universität Basel, Handschriftenabteilung, Nachlass Gustav von Bunge*, Bestand No 114.
61. Gustav von Bunge to Elisabeth von Ruckteschell, Basel, June 21, 1903. In *Öffentliche Bibliothek der Universität Basel, Handschriftenabteilung, Nachlass Gustav von Bunge*, Bestand No 114.
62. "Liivimaa XII arstidepäeva üle," *Postimees*, September 6/12, 1900, 2.
63. Woldemar von Bunge to Gustav von Bunge, Dorpat, September 14/26, 1891, in *Öffentliche Bibliothek der Universität Basel, Handschriftenabteilung, Nachlass Gustav von Bunge*, Bestand No 114.
64. Gustav von Bunge to Louise von Bunge, Basel, November 27, 1900, in *Öffentliche Bibliothek der Universität Basel, Handschriftenabteilung, Nachlass Gustav von Bunge*, Bestand No 114.
65. "Professor Gustav v. Bunge," in *Eesti Karskuse Seltsi Kalender 1895*, ed. Jüri Tilk (Jurjev: A. Grentzsteini trükikoda, 1894), 30.
66. Gustav von Bunge to Elisabeth von Ruckteschell, Basel, October 23, 1904, in *Öffentliche Bibliothek der Universität Basel, Handschriftenabteilung, Nachlass Gustav von Bunge*, Bestand No 114.

67. Gustav von Bunge to Elisabeth von Ruckteschell, Basel, October 25, 1910, in *Öffentliche Bibliothek der Universität Basel, Handschriftenabteilung, Nachlass Gustav von Bunge*, Bestand No 114.

68. Gustav von Bunge to Elisabeth von Ruckteschell, Basel, August 17, 1910, in *Öffentliche Bibliothek der Universität Basel, Handschriftenabteilung, Nachlass Gustav von Bunge*, Bestand No 114.

69. Gustav von Bunge to Elisabeth von Ruckteschell, Basel, March 21, 1913, in *Öffentliche Bibliothek der Universität Basel, Handschriftenabteilung, Nachlass Gustav von Bunge*, Bestand No 114.

70. Alexander Selenkoff, *Eine Skizze der Alkoholfrage (Nach einem am 12. April d. J. im Gewerbeverein gehaltenen Vortrage)* (Riga: Paul Kerkovius, 1907), 3.

71. Carl W. Schmidt, "Bericht über die Tätigkeit der Sektion zur Bekämpfung des Alkoholismus für das Jahr 1910," in *Verein zur Förderung der Volkswohlfahrt in Riga. Berichte über die Tätigkeit des Vereins, abgestattet auf dem 4. öffentl. Versammlung am 9. Febr. 1911* (Riga: G. Löffler, 1911), 5–14; Schmidt, "Über Trinkerfürsorge," *Hefte der Gesellschaft für kommunale Sozialpolitik in Riga* 3, no. 20 (1910): 117–52.

72. "Balti Naiste Karskusliidu tööst," *Eesti Naine* 7, no 8 (1926): 171.

73. Bunge, "Alkoholi küsimus," 22.

74. "Dörptsche medizinische Gesellschaft," *Estonian Historical Archives* 3576-1-13, Tartu, Estonia; "Die Gesellschaft der practischen Ärzte in Reval, 1911–1918," *Estonian Historical Archives* 5042-1-14.

75. Gustav von Bunge to Elisabeth von Ruckteschell, Basel, October 10, 1908, in *Öffentliche Bibliothek der Universität Basel, Handschriftenabteilung, Nachlass Gustav von Bunge*, Bestand No 114.

76. "Liivimaa XII arstidepäeva üle," 2.

77. Aadu Lüüs, "Ons eesti arstide ühing tarvilik?," *Postimees*, August 31, 1909, 1.

78. Henrik Koppel, "Mõni seletuse sõna eilase juhtkirja kohta: 'Ons eesti arstide ühisus tarvilik?,'" *Postimees*, September 1, 1909, 1.

79. Henrik Koppel, "Alkohol, arstiteadus ja arstid: XI üleilmisel karskuse kongressil Stockholmis," *Tervis* 5, no. 1 (1907): 49–62.

80. Euphemism for Estonia, a word not acceptable for the then czarist authorities.

81. *Protocole des I. Baltischen Aerztekongresses in Dorpat, 23.–25. August 1909* (St. Petersburg: Wienecke, 1910), 66.

82. Karl Dehio, "Der Alkohol und menschliche Organismus," *St. Petersburger medizinische Zeitschrift* 37, no. 20 (1912): 295–300; Christian Siebert, "Vorschläge zur Bekämpfung des Alkoholmissbrauches," *St. Petersburger medizinische Zeitschrift* 37, no. 20 (1912): 300–301; Hugo Hirsch, "Alkohol und Nerven," *St. Petersburger medizinische Zeitschrift* 37, no. 21 (1912): 311–15; Roderich von Engelhardt, "Die Alkoholfrage in individual- und sozialhygienischer Beleuchtung," *St. Petersburger medizinische Zeitschrift* 37, no. 21 (1912): 316–20.

83. Karl Dehio, *Der Alkoholmissbrauch und seine Bekämpfung. Vier Vorträge, gehalten auf dem II. baltischen Aerztekongress zu Reval 1912* (Jurjew: Krüger, 1912).

84. Carl W. Schmidt and Burchard von Schrenck, *An die vom Baltischen Aerztekongress gebildete ärztliche Kommission zur Begutachtung der Alkoholfrage* (Riga: Müllersche Buchdruckerei, 1912).

85. Dehio, *Der Alkoholmissbrauch und seine Bekämpfung*.

86. Werner Gruehn, "Was hat der Dorpater Student mit der heutigen Alkoholfrage zu tun? Gehalten im Theologischen Verein zu Dorpat am 14. November 1912," Estonian Historical Archives 1867-1-452.

87. Dehio, *Der Alkoholmissbrauch und seine Bekämpfung*, 52.

88. Gustav von Bunge to Elisabeth von Ruckteschell, Basel, March 14, 1913, in *Öffentliche Bibliothek der Universität Basel, Handschriftenabteilung, Nachlass Gustav von Bunge*, Bestand No 114.

89. Lauri Vahre, "Karskusseltsid Eesti riikluse sünnis," *Akadeemia* 9, no. 5 (1997): 957–71.

90. Kalling, "Application of Eugenics in Estonia 1918–1940."

91. Jüri Ant, "Alkoholipoliitikast ja karskusliikumisest Eestis 1920–1940," in *100 aastat karskusliikumist Eestis 1889–1989*, ed. Erki Silvet (Tallinn: Eesti Raamat, 1989), 38–60, esp. 41–42.

92. "Göteborgi süsteem," *Tallinna Teataja*, nos. 68–69 (1910).

93. Ant, "Alkoholipoliitikast ja karskusliikumisest Eestis 1920–1940," 53.

94. Weindling, *Health, Race and German Politics between National Unification and Nazism, 1870–1945*.

95. Gustav von Bunge to Elisabeth von Ruckteschell, Basel, October 23, 1904, in *Öffentliche Bibliothek der Universität Basel, Handschriftenabteilung, Nachlass Gustav von Bunge*, Bestand No 114.

96. Gustav von Bunge, *Vitalismus und Mechanismus Ein Vortrag* (Leipzig: Vogel, 1886); Gerhard Schmidt, *Das geistige Vermächtnis von Gustav von Bunge: Inaugural-Dissertation zur Erlangung der Doktorwürde der gesamten Heilkunde vorgelegt der Medizinischen Fakultät der Universität Basel* (Basel, 1973), 72–77; Schmidt, *Das geistige Vermächtnis von Gustav von Bunge*, 26–37.

97. Tammiksaar Kalling, "Descent versus Extinction: The Reception of Darwinism in Estonia," in *The Reception of Charles Darwin in Europe*, ed. Eve-Marie Engels and Thomas F. Glick (London, New York: Continuum, 2008), 1:217–29.